

CS310 Natural Language Processing

自然语言处理

Lecture 06: Pretraining Large Language Models

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Overview

- Data
- Model Architectures
- Pretraining Process

Overview

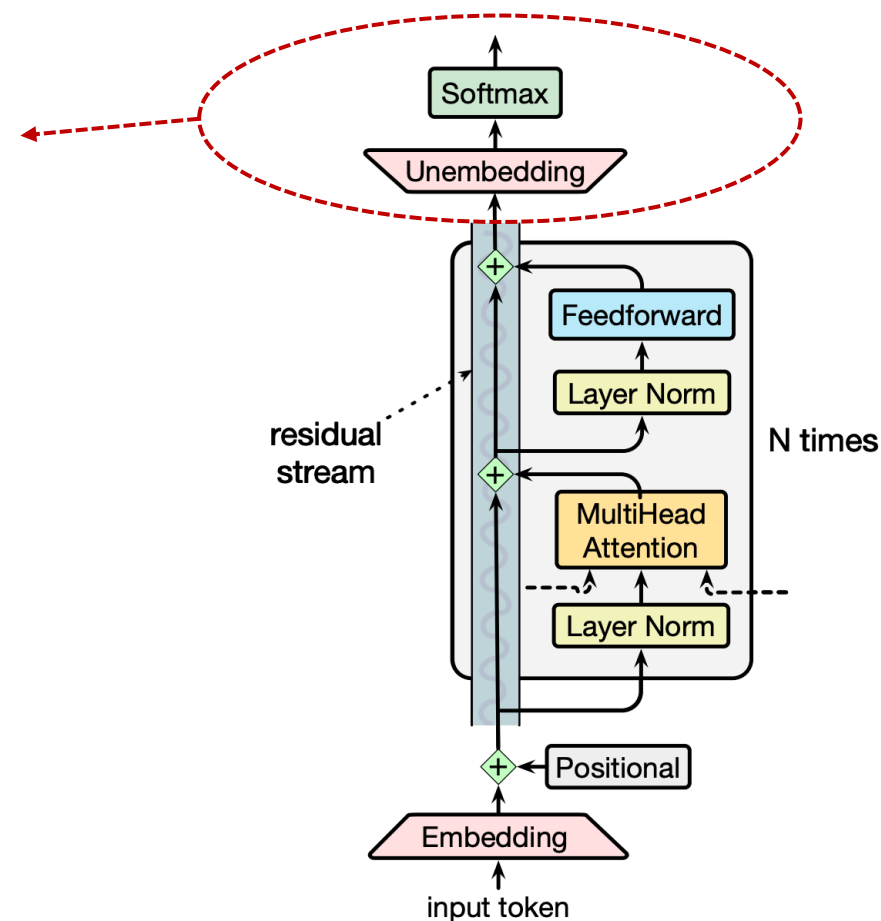
- **Data**
 - **Pretraining Tasks**
 - **Data**
 - **Tokenization**
- Model Architectures
- Pretraining Process

What is pretraining?

- “Pretraining” is a term used in machine learning
- Prefix “pre-” means “*happening before...*”
- The initial, resource-intensive phase in ML where a model is trained on ***massive, unlabeled*** data to learn broad patterns ...
 - Applied not just to LLMs, but also vision models and other ...
- Outcome of pretraining: A model with *general knowledge* that requires less, task-specific data to become highly proficient through fine-tuning.

Learning tasks for pretraining LLMs

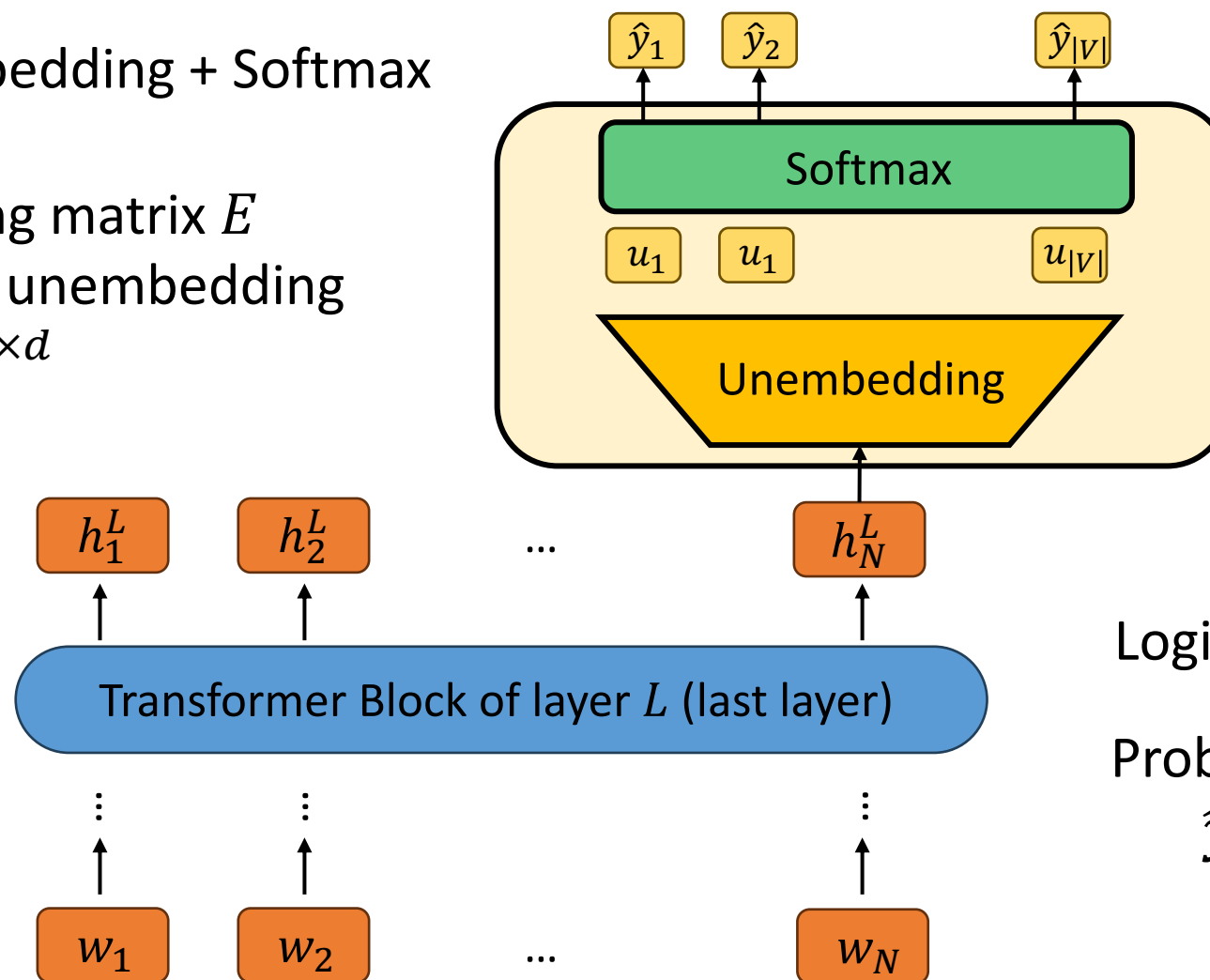
- Task: Predicting the next token.
- Using the language modeling head (**LMHead**)
- **LMHead = Unembedding + Softmax**



LM Head

- **LMHead** = Unembedding + Softmax

Use the embedding matrix E transposed as the unembedding matrix: $E^T \in \mathbb{R}^{|V| \times d}$



Logits: $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{h}_N^L \cdot \mathbf{E}^T$

Probability distribution:
 $\hat{\mathbf{y}} = \text{Softmax}(\mathbf{u})$

Use LM Head's output to predict

- At each position t , take as input the word sequence $w_{1:t}$, compute a probability distribution $\hat{\mathbf{y}}_t$, and then compute the **cross-entropy** loss between this distribution and the actual next word $\mathbf{y}_t[w_{t+1}]$

$\mathbf{y}_t$ is a one-hot vector of length $|V|$:

- $\mathbf{y}_t[w = w_{t+1}] = 1$
- $\mathbf{y}_t[w \neq w_{t+1}] = 0$

Cross-entropy loss:

- $L_{CE} = -\sum_{w \in V} \mathbf{y}_t[w] \log \hat{\mathbf{y}}_t[w] = -\log \hat{\mathbf{y}}_t[w_{t+1}]$
- Then average over entire sequence: $\frac{1}{T} \sum_{t=1}^T L_{CE}$

Sequence
length T
is large:

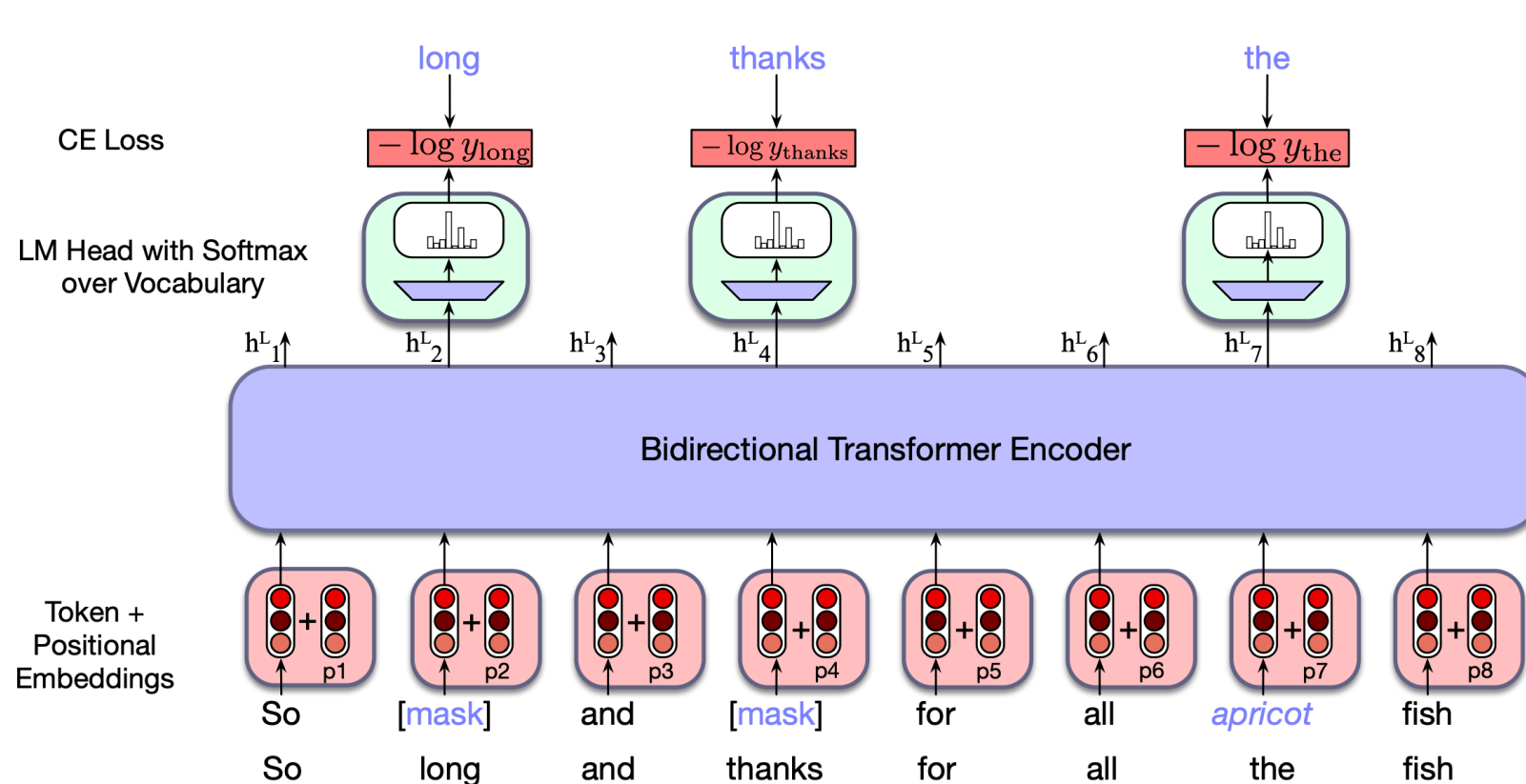
$T = 2048$ or 4096 for GPT3 or GPT3.5

GPT4: 8192; GPT4 Turbo: 128000

Source: <https://www.scriptbyai.com/token-limit-openai-chatgpt>

Other pretraining tasks

- **Masked Language Modeling (MLM):** Predict the masked tokens in a sequence, with bidirectional attentions. (used in BERT and its variants)

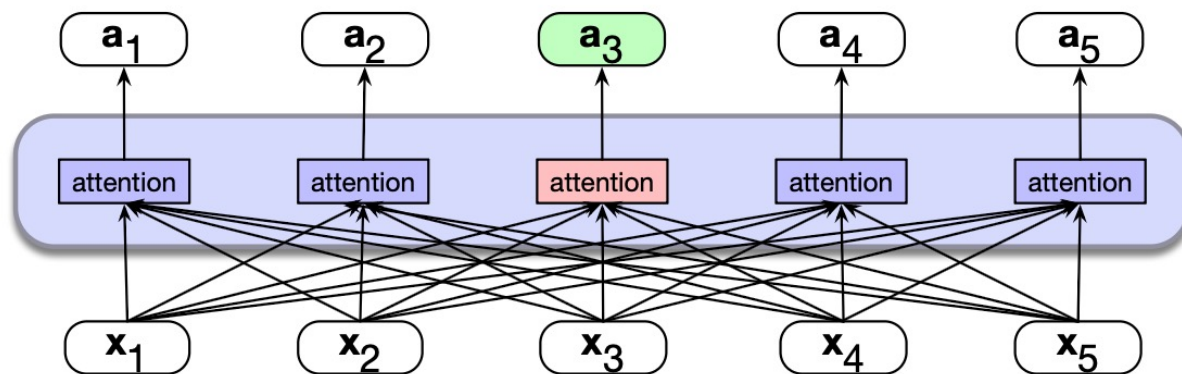


$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{MLM}} = -\frac{1}{|M|} \sum_{i \in M} \log P(x_i | \mathbf{z}_i)$$

$$= -\frac{1}{3} [\log P(\text{long} | \mathbf{z}_2) + \log P(\text{thanks} | \mathbf{z}_4) + \log P(\text{the} | \mathbf{z}_7)]$$

The masked tokens
 $M = \{\text{long}, \text{thanks}, \text{the}\}$
 have been sampled:
long $\Rightarrow$ [MASK]
thanks $\Rightarrow$ [MASK]
the $\Rightarrow$ apricot

MLM and bidirectional self-attention



Different from causal self-attention, bidirectional self-attention allows the attention mechanism to range over the entire input, i.e., can look at future tokens.

$$QK^T$$

N

q1·k1	q1·k2	q1·k3	q1·k4
q2·k1	q2·k2	q2·k3	q2·k4
q3·k1	q3·k2	q3·k3	q3·k4
q4·k1	q4·k2	q4·k3	q4·k4

N

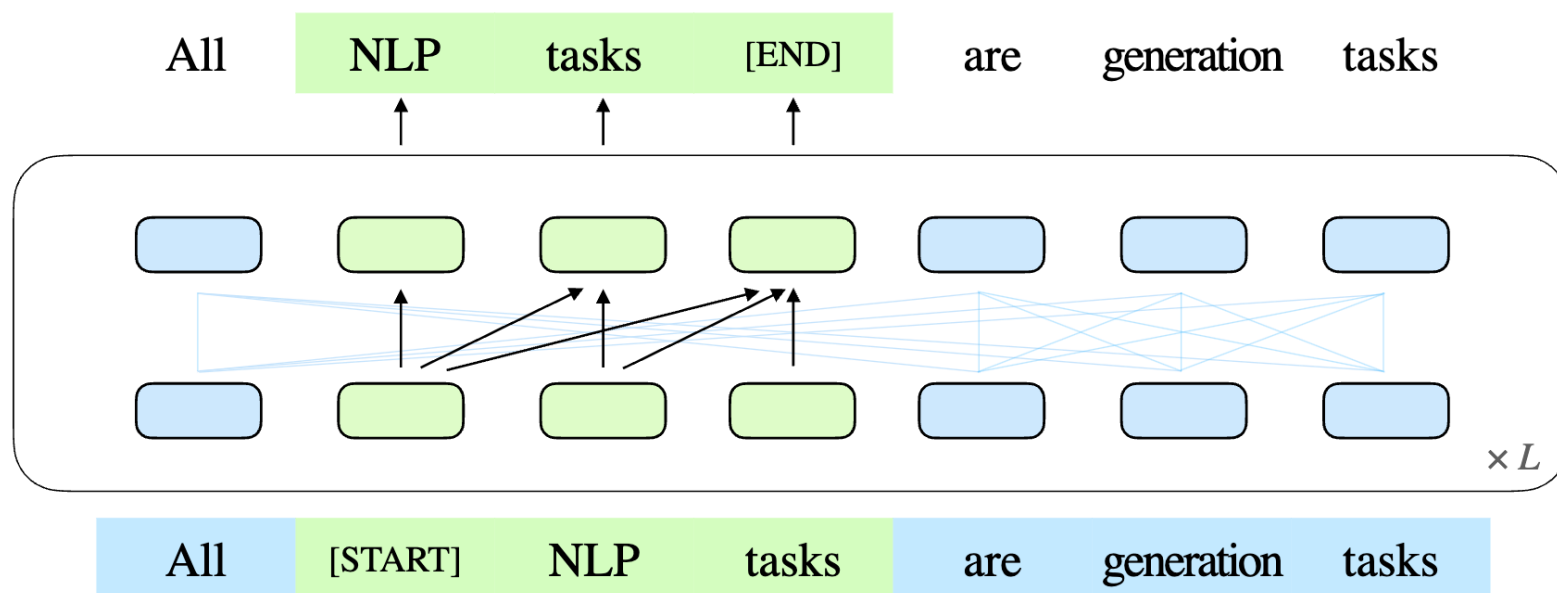
$$A = \text{softmax} \left(\text{mask} \left(\frac{QK^T}{\sqrt{d_k}} \right) \right) V$$

$$A = \text{softmax} \left(\frac{QK^T}{\sqrt{d_k}} \right) V$$

Other pretraining tasks

Du et al., 2022, <https://aclanthology.org/2022.acl-long.26.pdf>

- **General Language Modeling (GLM)**: Randomly blank out spans of tokens and train the model to sequentially reconstruct the spans.



Data for pretraining

Reference: A Survey of Large Language Models, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2303.18223>

- Sources of data: **General** text + **Specialized** text
- General text:
 - *Webpages*: CommonCrawl, Wikipedia, ...
 - *Conversation text*: PushShift.io Reddit corpus, ...
 - *Books*: The Pile (containing Books3, Bookcorpus2), Gutenberg, ...
- *Webpages* $\Rightarrow$ diverse knowledge and enhance generalization capabilities
- *Conversation* $\Rightarrow$ enhance conversational competence and QA performances
- *Books* $\Rightarrow$ provide formal long text, beneficial for learning linguistic knowledge and long-term dependencies

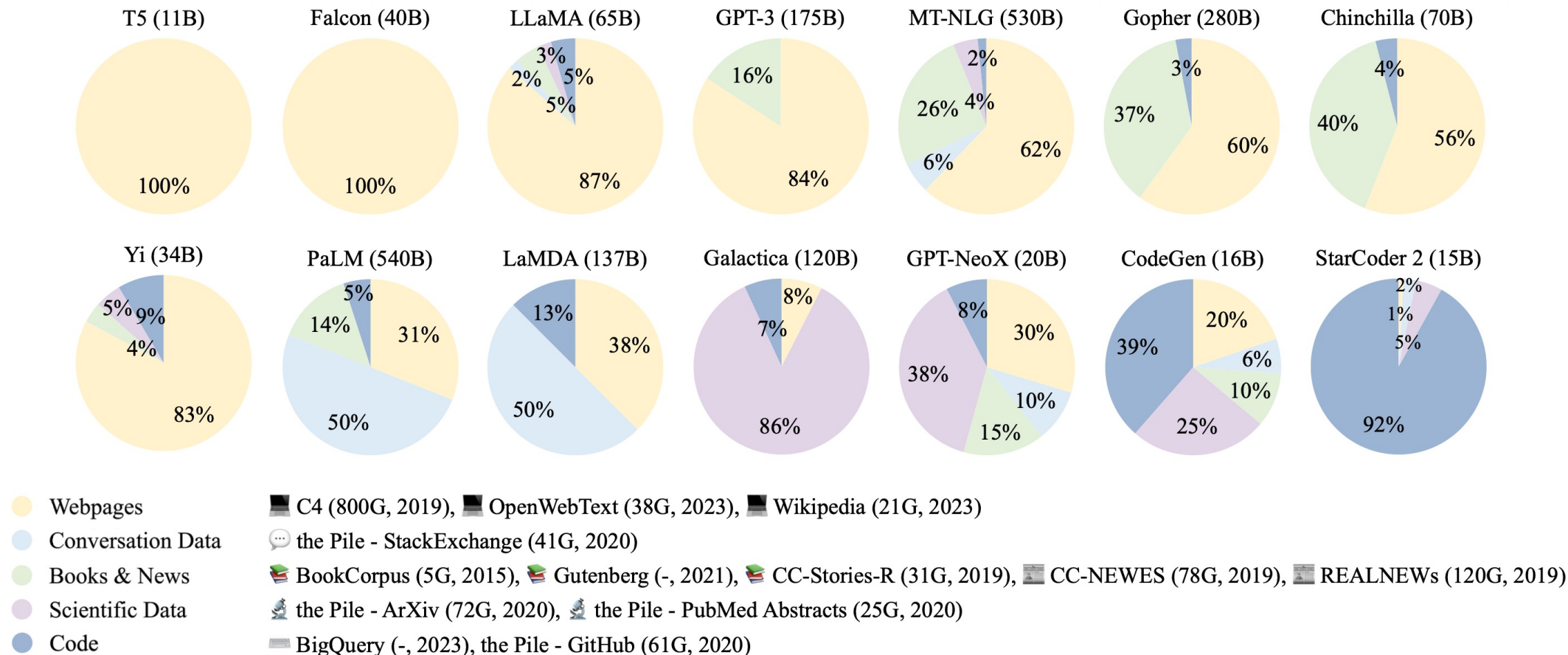
Data for pretraining

Reference: A Survey of Large Language Models, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2303.18223>

- Specialized text:
 - *Multilingual text*:
To enhance multilingual abilities in understanding and generation.
BLOOM and PALM (46 and 122 languages)
FLM (Chinese and English in equal proportions)
 - Scientific text:
To enhance the understanding of scientific knowledge for LLMs.
E.g., arXiv papers, science textbooks, math webpages
 - *Code*:
To enable LLMs to generate high-quality and accurate programs.
E.g., public software repositories such as Github

Data recipes examples

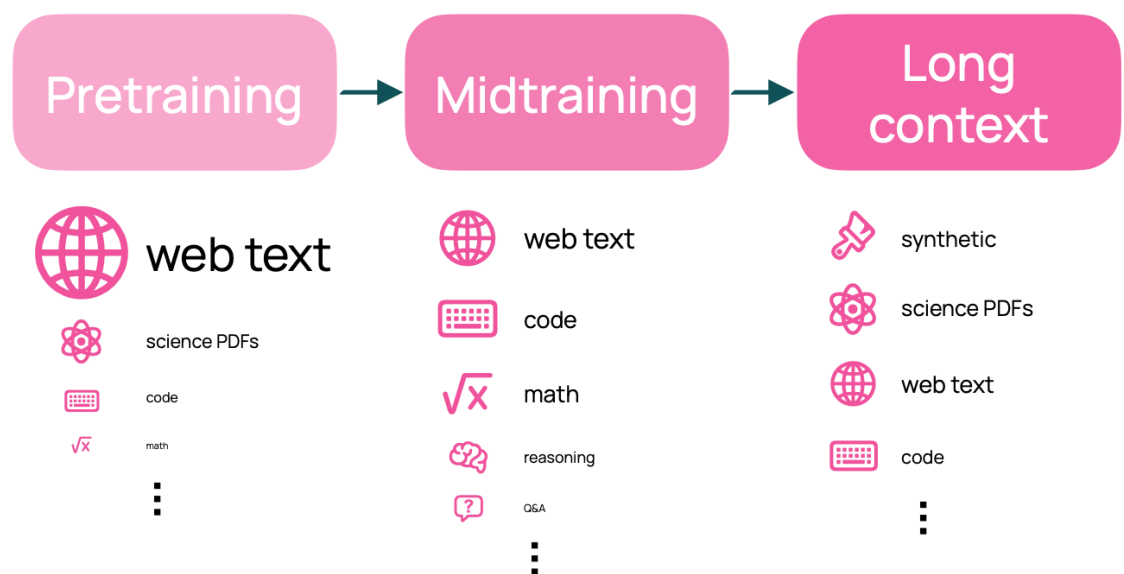
Reference: A Survey of Large Language Models, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2303.18223>



Data recipes examples

Reference: Olmo3 Technical Report, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2512.13961>

- Olmo 3 recipes



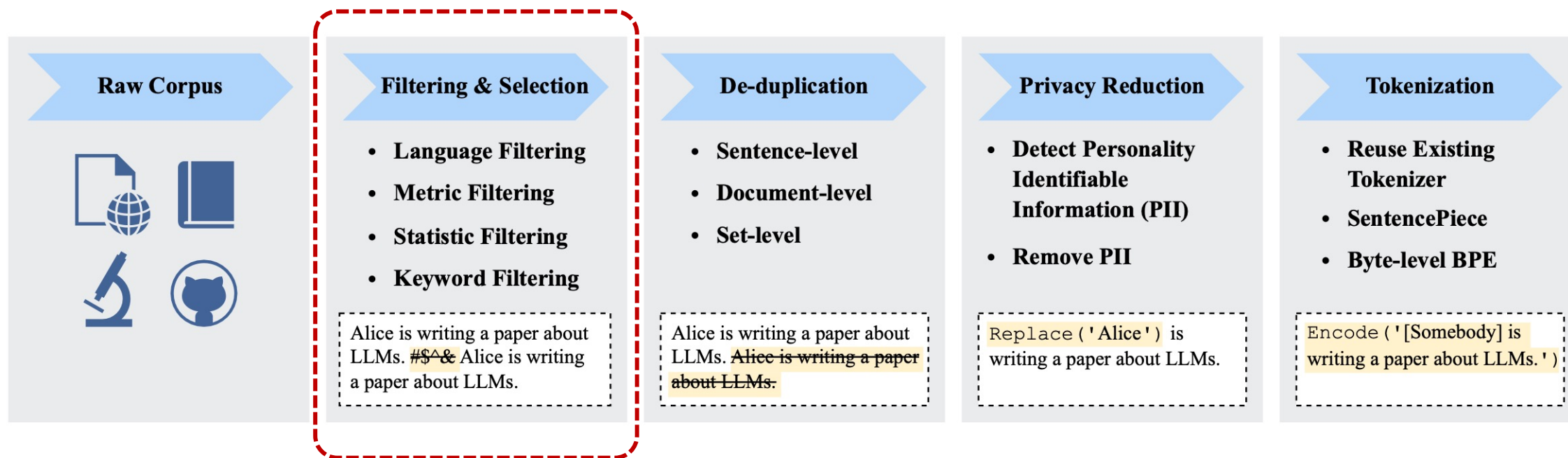
 **Base Data:** Pretrain: Dolma 3 Mix Midtrain: Dolma 3 Dolmino Mix Long-ctx: Dolma 3 Longmino Mix

Examples of datasets

- **E.g., Common Crawl:** A series of snapshots of the entire web with billions of webpages
- E.g., Colossal Clean Crawled Corpus (C4; Raffel et al., 2020): 156 billion tokens
 - Mostly patent text documents, Wikipedia, and news sites (according to Dodge et al., 2021)
- E.g., MNBVC (Massive Never-ending BT Vast Chinese corpus)
超大规模中文语料集
- Needs a LOT of data preprocessing work!

Data preprocessing

Reference: A Survey of Large Language Models, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2303.18223>

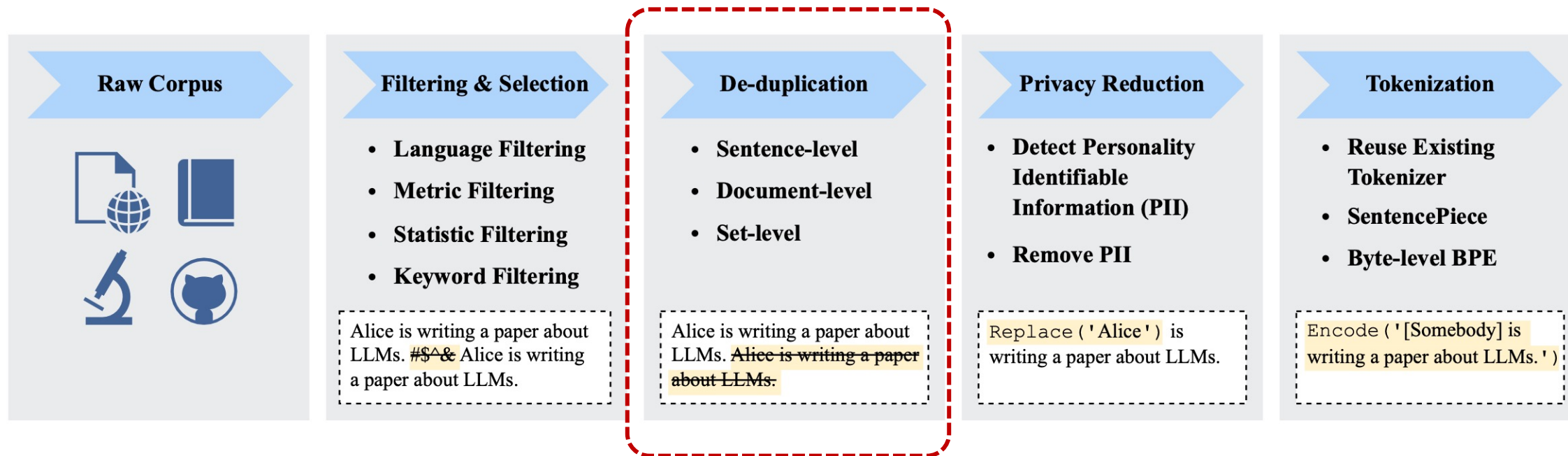


Filtering and Selection: Remove low-quality data

- Language-based: e.g., EN-CN
- Metric-based: e.g., perplexity
- Statistic-based: e.g., sentence length

Data preprocessing

Reference: A Survey of Large Language Models, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2303.18223>

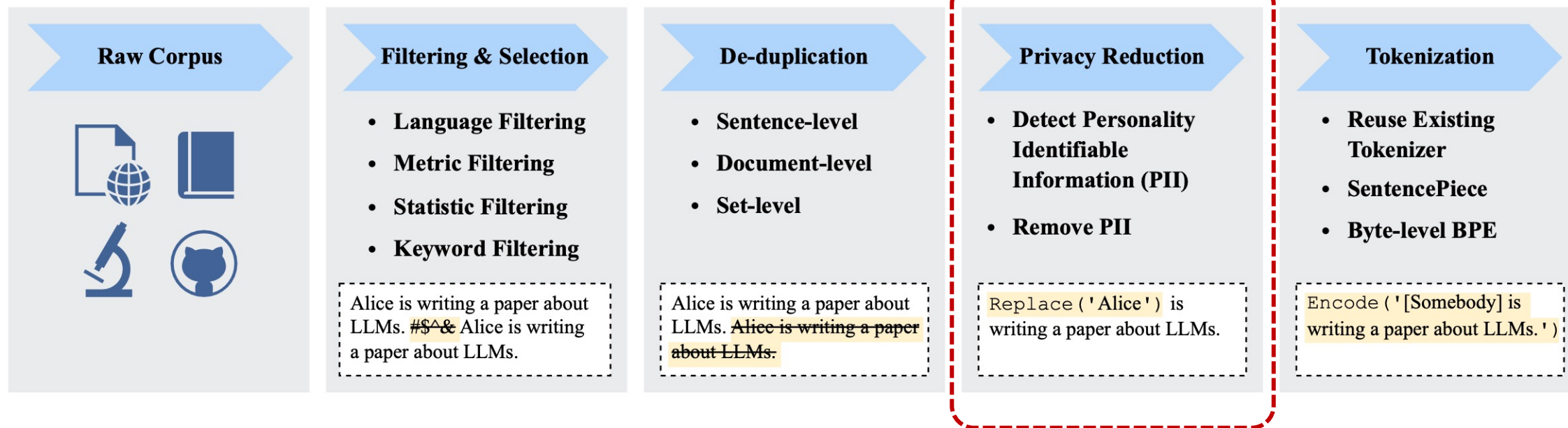


Duplicate data in corpus may cause the training process to become unstable, and reduce the diversity of language models.

- Sentence level, document-level, dataset-level.

Data preprocessing

Reference: A Survey of Large Language Models, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2303.18223>

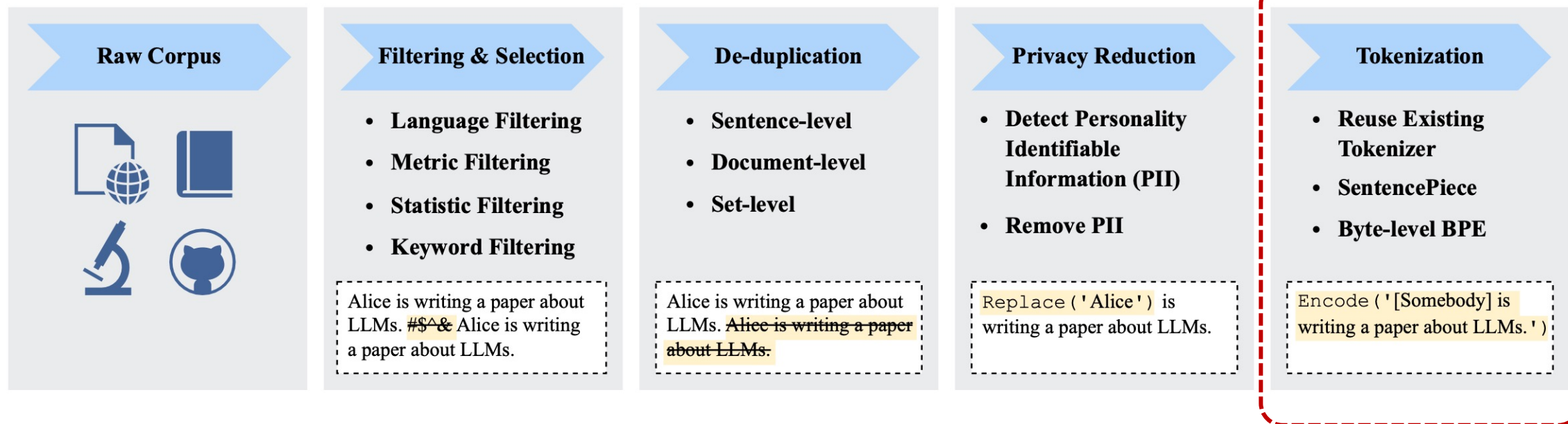


Remove personally identifiable information (PII)

- Key word spotting: names, addresses, phone numbers ...

Data preprocessing

Reference: A Survey of Large Language Models, <https://arxiv.org/pdf/2303.18223>



Segment raw text into sequences of individual tokens, which will be subsequently used as the inputs of LLMs.

Tokenization 词元化

- Tokenization: raw string $\Rightarrow$ sequence of tokens
- Token (词元): the basic information processing unit of LLMs
- Traditional NLP uses vocabulary-based tokenization
 - Problems: Too many low-frequency tokens, out-of-vocabulary (OOV)
- Solutions in most LLMs: **Subword tokenizer**
- Examples: Byte-Pair Encoding (BPE) tokenization, WordPiece, SentencePiece, Unigram etc.

Byte-Pair Encoding (BPE) tokenization

- BPE was initially developed for text compression.
 - First used for pretraining GPT v1, and later GPT-2, RoBERTa, BART etc.
- Basic procedure:
- Initialize a set of characters (letters and boundary symbols) from corpus.
- Iteratively **merge** the token **pairs** with the highest frequency, replacing them with new tokens.
- Repeat until a pre-defined vocab size is reached.

BPE example

- All unique English word in a corpus:
[“loop”, “pool”, “loot”, “tool”, “loots”]
- Initial vocab: [“l”, “o”, “p”, “t”, “s”], with vocab size $|V|=5$
- Assume the words frequencies are:

(“loop”, 15),

(“pool”, 10),

(“loot”, 10),

(“tool”, 5),

(“loots”, 8)

Token pairs with the highest frequency:
 (“o”, “o”) occurs $15+10+10+5+8 = 48$ times

It should be merged:

(“o”, “o”) $\Rightarrow$ “oo”

Updated vocab:

[“l”, “o”, “p”, “t”, “s”, “oo”]

BPE example

- Updated corpus:

("l", "oo", "p", 15),

("p", "oo", "l", 10),

("l", "oo", "t", 10),

("t", "oo", "l", 5),

("l", "oo", "t", "s", 8)

Highest frequency pair:

("l", "oo") occurs $15+10+8 = 33$ times

It should be merged:

("l", "oo") $\Rightarrow$ "loo"

Updated vocab:

["l", "o", "p", "t", "s",
"oo", "loo"]

BPE example

- Updated corpus:

(“loo”, “p”, 15),

(“p”, “oo”, “l”, 10),

(“loo”, “t”, 10),

(“t”, “oo”, “l”, 5),

(“loo”, “t”, “s”, 8)

Highest frequency pair:
 (“loo”, “t”) occurs $10+8 = 18$ times

It should be merged:

(“loo”, “t”) $\Rightarrow$ “loot”

Updated vocab:

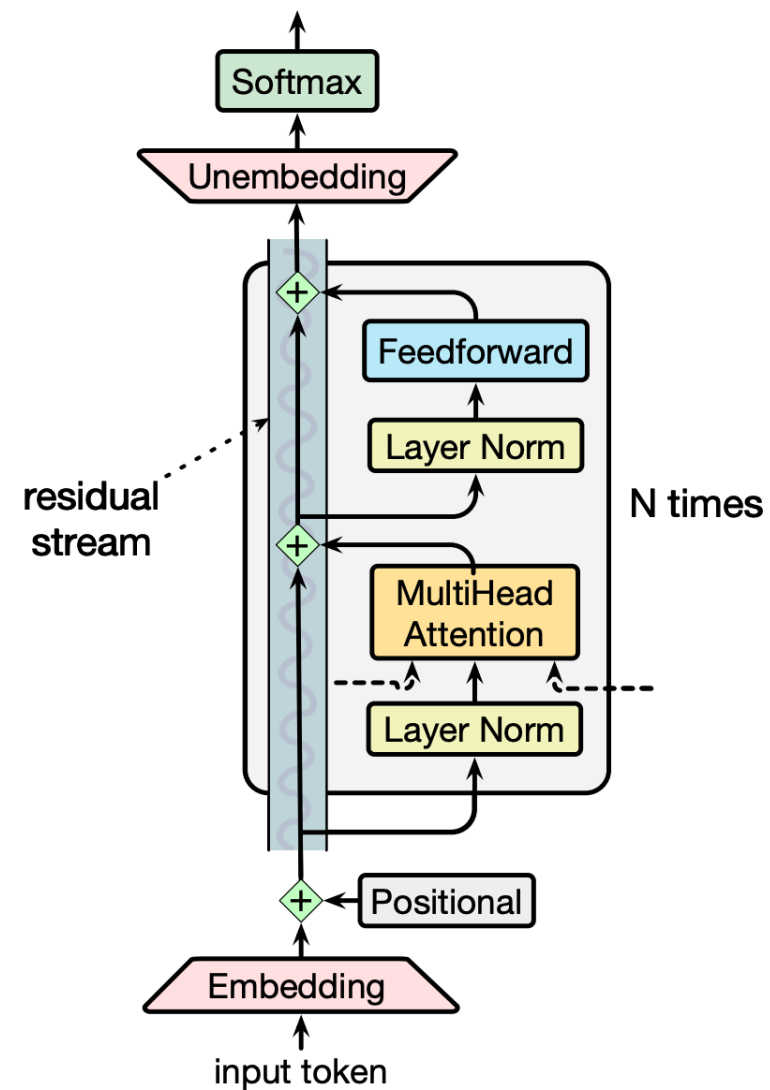
[“l”, “o”, “p”, “t”, “s”,
“oo”, “loo”, “loot”]

Current vocab size $|V|=8$

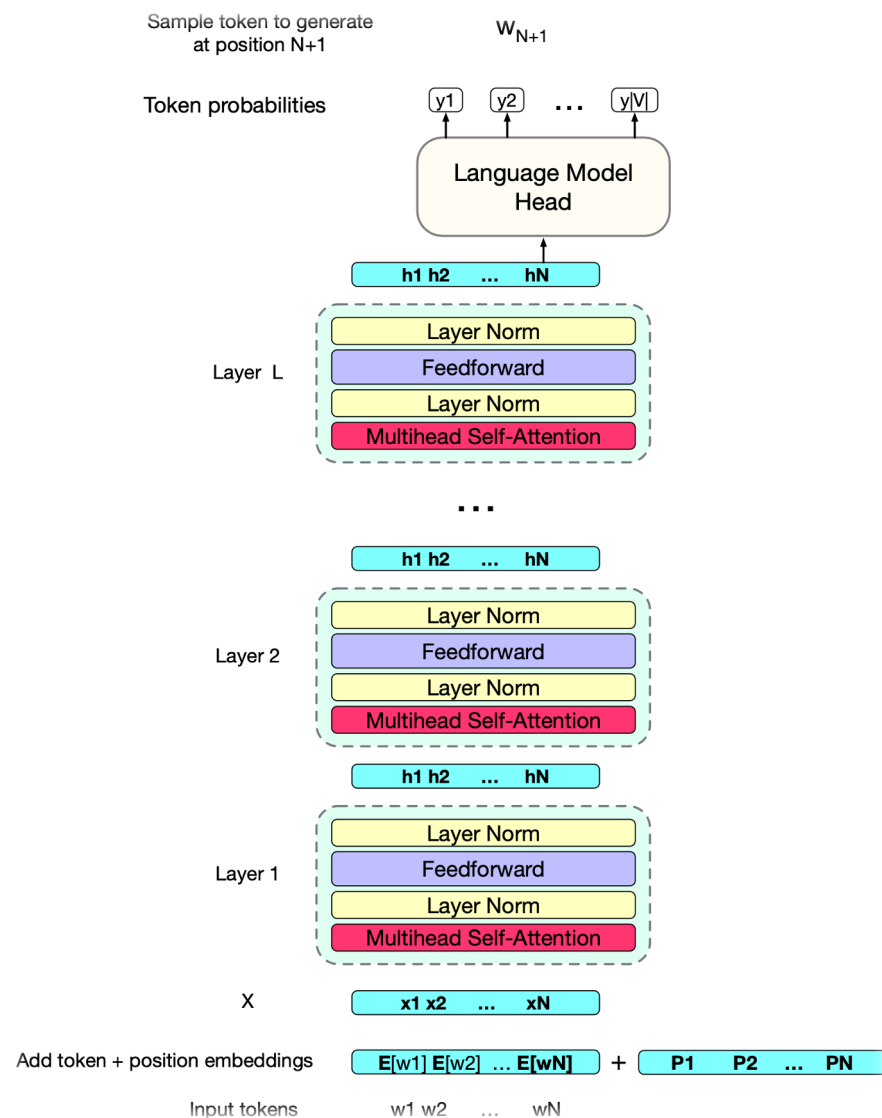
...Repeat until a certain $|V|$ is reached

Overview

- Data
- **Model Architectures**
 - **Architecture Variants**
- Pretraining Process



Architecture terminology: Decoder-only



Transformer model has a stacked architecture of multiple layers of transformer blocks

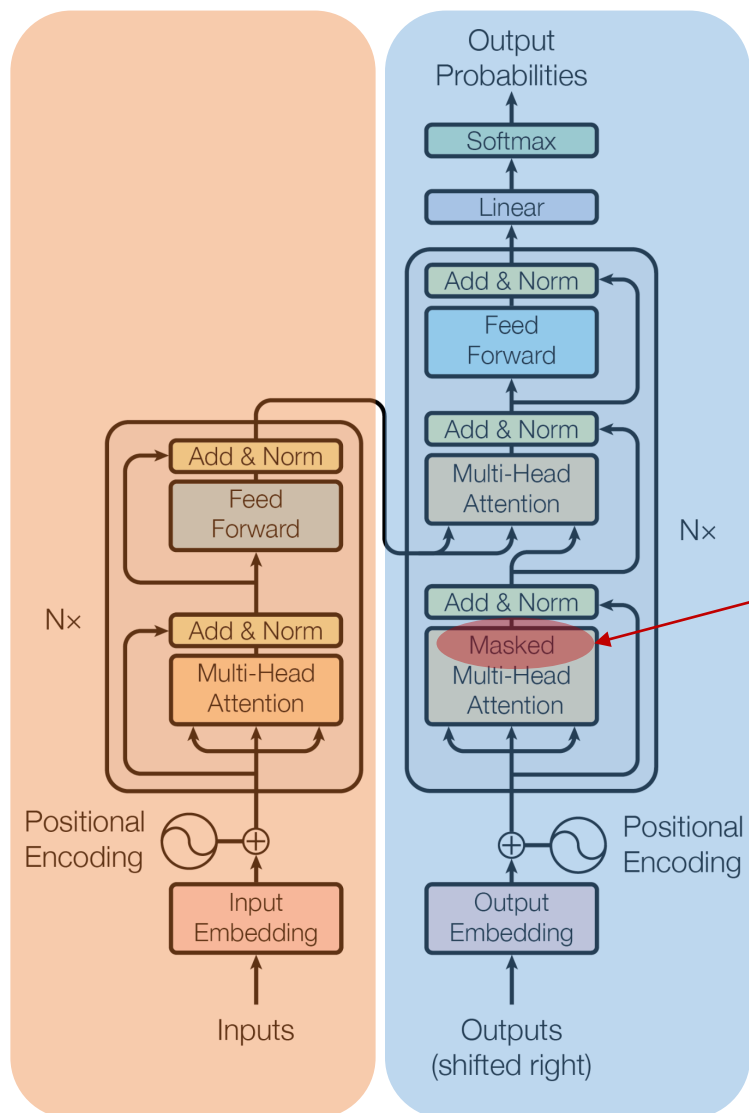
The input to all the other layers is the output H from the layer below

Terminology:

- **decoder-only model**: it is only half of the encoder-decoder model in the original work (*Attention is all you need* paper, 2017)

Architecture: Encoder-decoder

Encoder



Decoder

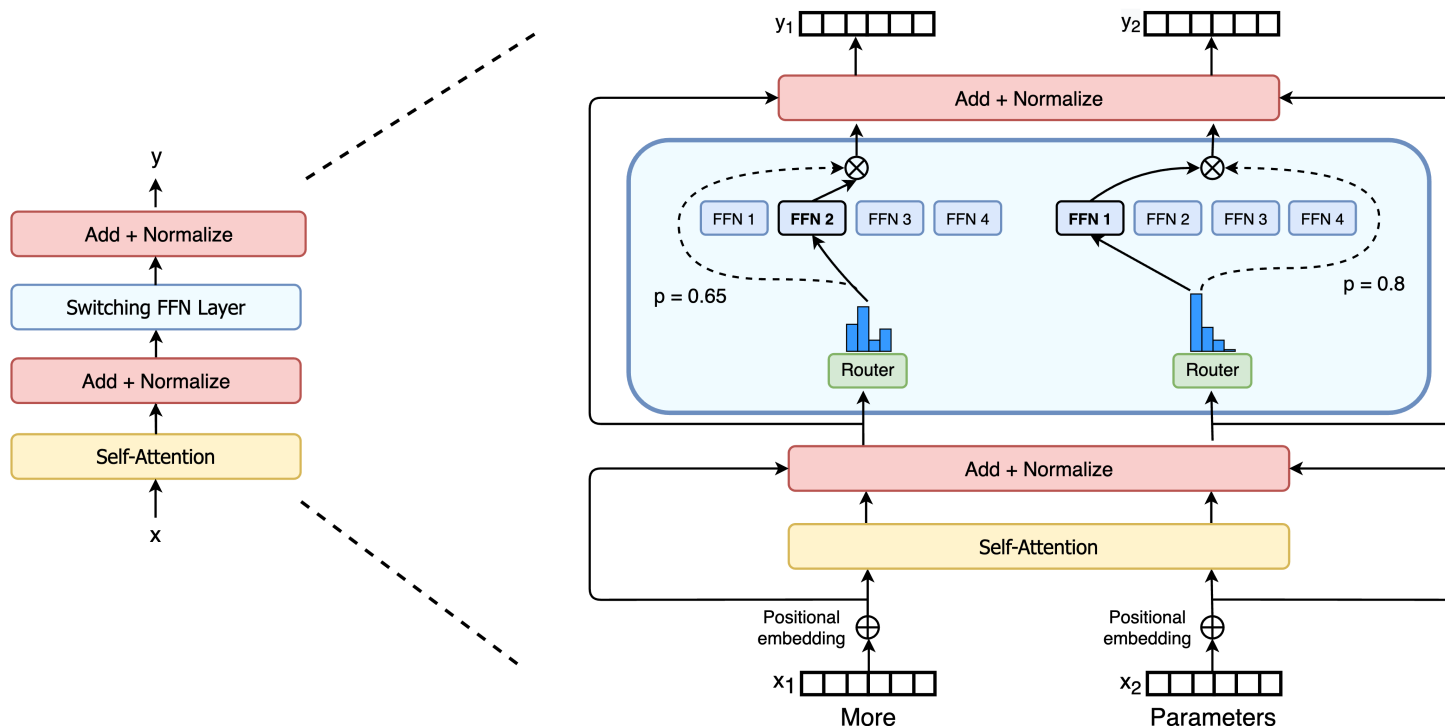
The original work is for machine translation task

- In the encoder, the self-attention is *bidirectional*;
- In the decoder, the self-attention is causal, i.e., future words are masked out

It was later that the paradigm for *causal* language model was defined using only the decoder part

Architecture: Mixture of Experts (MoE)

- How to train faster? -- Replace every FFN layer of the transformer model with an **MoE** layer



Each MoE layer has K experts:

$$E_1, E_2, \dots, E_K$$

Each E_i is an FFN

Each token x_t is passed through a **router**, or **gate** G , computing the weight of each expert

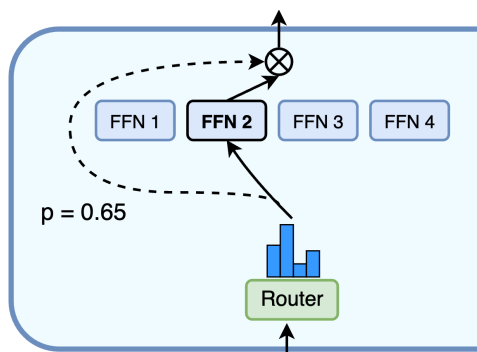
$$G(x_t) = \text{softmax}(\text{topk}(x_t \cdot W^G))$$

Architecture: Mixture of Experts (MoE) cont.

- Only top k experts will be selected (other non-selected experts will be placed with weight 0)

$$G(\mathbf{x}_t) = \text{softmax}(\text{topk}(\mathbf{x}_t \cdot \mathbf{W}^G))$$

- $G(\mathbf{x}_t)$ is in the form: $[G(\mathbf{x}_t)_1, \dots, G(\mathbf{x}_t)_k]$
- The output is the weighted sum of all selected experts



$$\text{MoELayer}(\mathbf{x}_t) = \sum_{i=1}^K G(\mathbf{x}_t)_i \cdot E_i(\mathbf{x}_t)$$

Comparison of Model Architecture

	LLaMA-3.1 (405B)	DeepSeek (67B)	DS-V2 (236B)	DS-V3 (671B)
MoE	No	No	162 experts	257 expert
# of layers	126	95	60	61
Hidden dimension d	16384	8192	5120	7168
# of attention heads	128	64	128	128

Variance on Normalization

$$\mu = \frac{1}{d} \sum_{i=1}^d x_i \quad \sigma = \sqrt{\frac{1}{d} \sum_{i=1}^d (x_i - \mu)^2}$$

- Original transformer: Layer normalization

$$\text{LayerNorm}(\mathbf{x}) = \gamma \hat{\mathbf{x}} + \beta \quad \hat{\mathbf{x}} = (\mathbf{x} - \mu) / \sigma$$

- More advanced methods:
- Root Mean Square Layer Normalization: **RMSNorm**

$$\text{RMSNorm}(\mathbf{x}) = \gamma \frac{\mathbf{x}}{\text{RMS}(\mathbf{x})}$$

$$\text{RMS}(\mathbf{x}) = \sqrt{\frac{1}{d} \sum_{i=1}^d x_i^2}$$

- RMSNorm has better speed and performance
- Used in Gopher, Chinchilla, LLaMA 3.1, DeepSeek

Variance on Normalization cont.

- DeepNorm
- Scale the residual connection with some factor α

$$\text{DeepNorm}(\mathbf{x}) = \text{LayerNorm}(\alpha \cdot \mathbf{x} + \text{Sublayer}(\mathbf{x}))$$

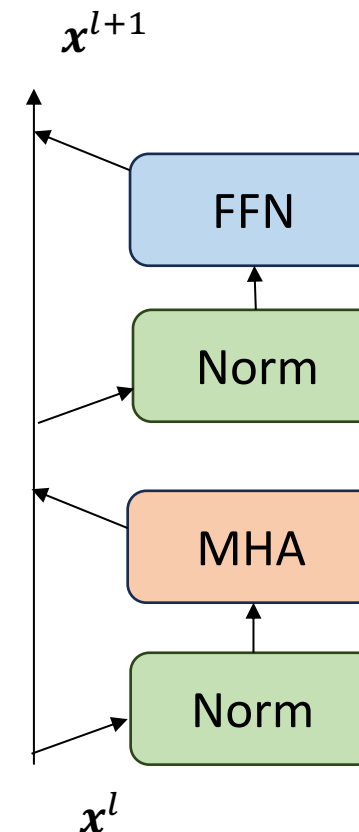
- where Sublayer represents FFN or Self-Attention (MHA)
- More robust training effect, deeper networks (>1000)
- Used in GLM-130B

Position of Normalization

- **Pre-Norm:** normalization placed before residual connection, to every sublayer

$$\text{PreNorm}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x} + \text{Sublayer}(\text{Norm}(\mathbf{x}))$$

- Pros: Training is more robust
- Cons: Less performant than Post-Norm

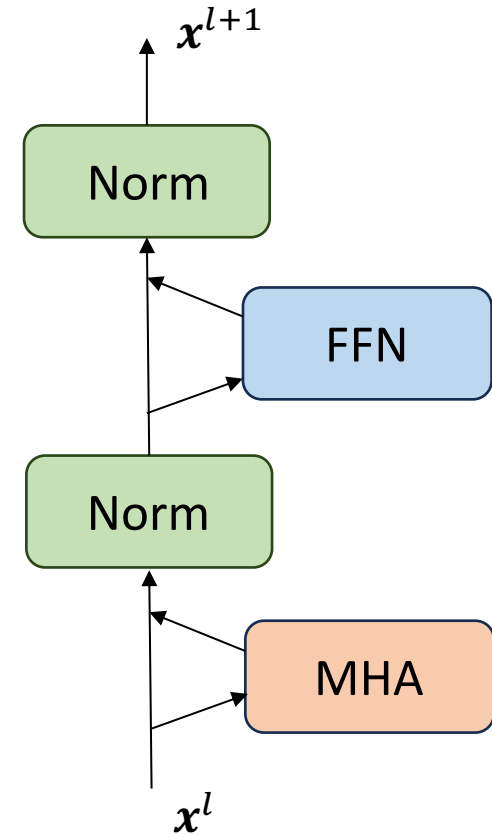


Position of Normalization

- **Post-Norm:** normalization placed after residual connection

$$\text{PostNorm}(\mathbf{x}) = \text{Norm}(\mathbf{x} + \text{Sublayer}(\mathbf{x}))$$

- Used in original transformer
- Pros: Training is faster to converge
- Cons: Sometimes makes training less robust



Comparison of Model Architecture cont.

	LLaMA-3.1 (405B)	DeepSeek (67B)	DS-V2 (236B)	DS-V3 (671B)
MoE	No	No	162 experts	257 expert
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Normalization	Pre RMSNorm	Pre RMSNorm	Pre RMSNorm	Pre RMSNorm

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- **Pretraining Process**

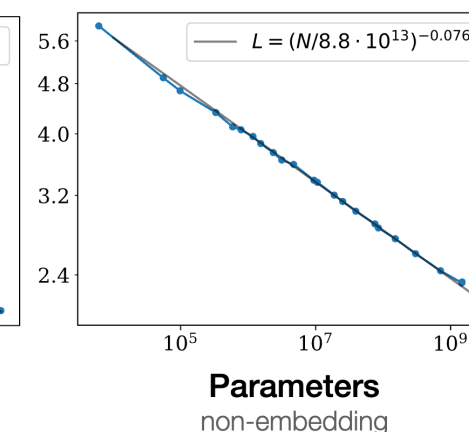
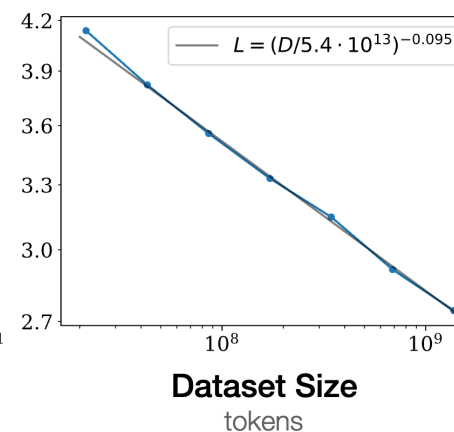
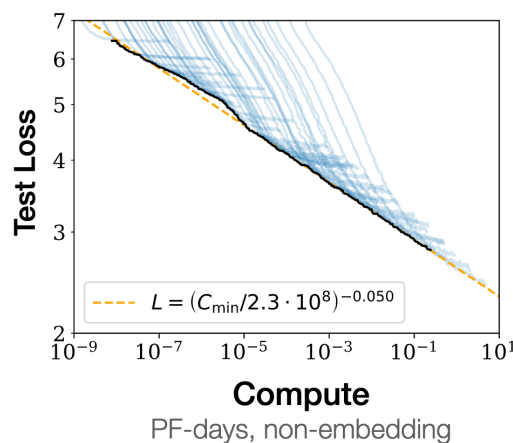
Train: Scaling Laws

- **Scaling laws:** LLMs' performance (measured by loss) scales as a *power law* with each of the three factors: model size, dataset size, and training time

$$L(C) = \left(\frac{C_c}{C}\right)^{\alpha_C} \quad L(D) = \left(\frac{D_c}{D}\right)^{\alpha_D} \quad L(N) = \left(\frac{N_c}{N}\right)^{\alpha_N}$$

Loss L as a function of:

- Number of non-embedding parameters N
 - Dataset size D
 - Compute budget C
- (In each case the other two factors are held constant)



Ref: Kaplan et al. (2020) Scaling Laws for Neural Language Models. arxiv.org/abs/2001.08361

Training: Estimate # of Parameters

- The number of non-embedding parameters N can be estimated:
- $N \approx 2d \cdot n_{\text{layer}} \cdot (2d_{\text{attn}} + d_{\text{ff}}) \approx 12n_{\text{layer}}d^2$
- (Assuming $d = d_{\text{attn}} = d_{\text{ff}}$)
- For GPT-3, with $n = 96$ layers and $d = 12288$, $N \approx 12 \times 96 \times 12288^2 \approx 1.74 \times 10^{11}$
- That is 174 billion parameters (千亿)